

Math 147

Analysis

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Contents

1	Course Notes	3
1.1	General Information	3
1.1.1	Contact	3
1.1.2	Course Structure	3
2	Foundations of Calculus	4
2.1	Lecture 1	4
2.1.1	What Is Calculus?	4
2.1.2	Numbers	4
2.1.3	Statements and Quantifiers	5
2.2	Mathematical Induction	6
2.2.1	Well-Ordering Principle	7
2.3	The Algebraic and Order Properties of $\mathbb{R}$	8
2.3.1	The Absolute Value	11
2.4	Bounds	13
2.5	The Completeness Property of $\mathbb{R}$	14
2.6	The Archimedean Property	15

2 Foundations of Calculus

2.1 Lecture 1

2.1.1 What Is Calculus?

Differential and integral calculus are two branches of calculus.

Differential calculus: The study of slopes and tangent lines.

Integral calculus: The study of areas and accumulation.

2.1.2 Numbers

The number systems discussed in this lecture include

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbb{N} &= \{1, 2, 3, \dots\}, \\ \mathbb{Z} &= \{\dots, -1, 0, 1, \dots\}, \\ \mathbb{Q} &= \left\{ \frac{m}{n} : m, n \in \mathbb{Z}, n \neq 0 \right\}.\end{aligned}$$

The natural numbers are closed under addition. The integers are closed under addition, subtraction, and multiplication, but they are not closed under division; for example, $1/2 \notin \mathbb{Z}$. Therefore, we introduce the rational numbers to include quotients of integers with nonzero denominators.

Theorem 2.1.1 (Irrationality of $\sqrt{2}$)

The number $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational; equivalently, $\sqrt{2} \notin \mathbb{Q}$.

Proof

Suppose, for contradiction, that $\sqrt{2} \in \mathbb{Q}$. Then we can write

$$\sqrt{2} = \frac{m}{n}, \quad m, n \in \mathbb{Z}, \quad n > 0, \quad \gcd(m, n) = 1.$$

Squaring both sides gives

$$2 = \frac{m^2}{n^2} \quad \implies \quad m^2 = 2n^2.$$

Thus m^2 is even. An odd integer has an odd square, so m must be even. Write $m = 2\ell$ for some $\ell \in \mathbb{Z}$. Substituting this into the equation above gives

$$\begin{aligned}2n^2 &= 4\ell^2, \\ n^2 &= 2\ell^2.\end{aligned}$$

Therefore n^2 is even, and the same parity argument shows that n is even.

This means that both m and n are even, contradicting $\gcd(m, n) = 1$. Therefore, $\sqrt{2} \notin \mathbb{Q}$. ■

The irrational numbers are the real numbers that are not rational:

$$\mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q} = \{x \in \mathbb{R} : x \notin \mathbb{Q}\}.$$

Example 2.1.2 (Decimal representation)

Every nonnegative real number has a decimal representation of the form

$$x = a + \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{x_i}{10^i}, \quad a \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}, \quad x_i \in \{0, 1, 2, \dots, 9\}.$$

Negative real numbers are the negatives of such expansions. Some numbers have two decimal representations, for example $1.999\dots = 2.000\dots$.

Example 2.1.3 (Recurring decimal)

Is the statement $1.999\dots = 2$ correct?

Yes. Let $x = 1.999\dots$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} x &= 1.999\dots, \\ 10x &= 19.999\dots, \\ 9x &= 18, \\ x &= 2. \end{aligned}$$

2.1.3 Statements and Quantifiers**Definition 2.1.4** (Statement)

A statement is a sentence that has a definite truth value: it is either true or false.

The **universal quantifier** $\forall$ means “for all.” For example,

Example 2.1.5

The statement

$$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}, \quad x^2 - x \geq 0$$

is false; for instance, it fails when $x = \frac{1}{2}$.

The **existential quantifier** $\exists$ means “there exists.” For example,

Example 2.1.6

The statement

$$\exists x \in \mathbb{R}, \quad x^2 - x \geq 0$$

is true; for instance, $x = 2$ satisfies the inequality.

Proposition 2.1.7

For every $x \in \mathbb{R}$, there exists $y \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$x^3 - y^3 = 1.$$

Proof

Let $x \in \mathbb{R}$ and take $y = \sqrt[3]{x^3 - 1}$. Then

$$x^3 - y^3 = x^3 - (x^3 - 1) = 1.$$

■

Proposition 2.1.8

The statement

$$\exists y \in \mathbb{R}, \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}, \quad x^3 - y^3 = 1$$

is false.

Its negation is

$$\forall y \in \mathbb{R}, \quad \exists x \in \mathbb{R}, \quad x^3 - y^3 \neq 1.$$

To prove the negation, let $y \in \mathbb{R}$ and take $x = y$. Then $x^3 - y^3 = 0 \neq 1$.

Remark

The order of quantifiers matters.

2.2 Mathematical Induction**Definition 2.2.1** (Principle of Mathematical Induction)

Let $P(n)$ be a statement depending on $n \in \mathbb{N}$. If the following two statements are true:

- (1) $P(1)$ is true;
- (2) for every $k \in \mathbb{N}$, if $P(k)$ is true, then $P(k+1)$ is true;

then

$$\forall n \in \mathbb{N}, \quad P(n)$$

is true.

Here is an example:

Proposition 2.2.2 (Sum of the First n Natural Numbers)

For every $n \in \mathbb{N}$,

$$1 + 2 + \cdots + n = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}.$$

Proof

Define $P(n)$ to be the statement

$$1 + 2 + \cdots + n = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}.$$

The base case is $n = 1$:

$$1 = \frac{1(1+1)}{2}.$$

For the inductive step, let $k \in \mathbb{N}$ and assume that $P(k)$ is true. Then

$$\begin{aligned} 1 + 2 + \cdots + (k+1) &= \frac{k(k+1)}{2} + (k+1) \\ &= \frac{k(k+1) + 2(k+1)}{2} \\ &= \frac{(k+1)(k+2)}{2}. \end{aligned}$$

Thus, $P(k+1)$ is true. By the principle of mathematical induction, the proposition follows. ■

The principle of mathematical induction has the following equivalent set formulation.

Proposition 2.2.3

Let $S \subseteq \mathbb{N}$. If

- (i) $1 \in S$;
- (ii) for every $k \in S$, $k+1 \in S$;

then $S = \mathbb{N}$.

Proof

Define $P(n)$ to be the statement $n \in S$. The two assumptions give the base case $P(1)$ and the inductive implication $P(k) \Rightarrow P(k+1)$. Hence, by mathematical induction, every $n \in \mathbb{N}$ belongs to S . Since $S \subseteq \mathbb{N}$, it follows that $S = \mathbb{N}$. ■

2.2.1 Well-Ordering Principle

Theorem 2.2.4 (Well-Ordering Principle)

Every nonempty subset S of $\mathbb{N}$ has a smallest element.

Proof

Let $S \subseteq \mathbb{N}$ be nonempty. Suppose, for contradiction, that S has no smallest element. Define

$$T = \{n \in \mathbb{N} : \{1, 2, \dots, n\} \cap S = \emptyset\}.$$

Since S has no smallest element, $1 \notin S$, so $1 \in T$. Suppose $k \in T$. If $k+1 \notin T$, then $k+1 \in S$, while no element of $\{1, 2, \dots, k\}$ belongs to S . Thus, $k+1$ would be the smallest element of S , a contradiction. Therefore, $k+1 \in T$.

By mathematical induction, $T = \mathbb{N}$. This implies that no natural number belongs to S , so

$S = \emptyset$, contradicting the assumption that S is nonempty. Therefore, S has a smallest element. ■

Proposition 2.2.5

Using the well-ordering principle, prove that for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$,

$$1^2 + 2^2 + \cdots + n^2 = \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6}.$$

Proof

Let $P(n)$ denote the statement

$$1^2 + 2^2 + \cdots + n^2 = \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6}.$$

Suppose, for contradiction, that $P(n)$ fails for some n ; that is,

$$\neg(\forall n \in \mathbb{N}, P(n)) \quad \text{equivalently} \quad \exists n \in \mathbb{N}, \neg P(n).$$

Then the set

$$S := \{n \in \mathbb{N} : \neg P(n)\}$$

is nonempty. By the well-ordering principle, S has a smallest element k . Since $P(1)$ holds, $1 \notin S$, so $k > 1$ and hence $k-1 \in \mathbb{N}$.

By minimality of k , we have $k-1 \notin S$, so $P(k-1)$ is true:

$$1^2 + 2^2 + \cdots + (k-1)^2 = \frac{(k-1)k(2(k-1)+1)}{6} = \frac{(k-1)k(2k-1)}{6}.$$

Adding k^2 to both sides gives

$$\begin{aligned} 1^2 + \cdots + (k-1)^2 + k^2 &= \frac{(k-1)k(2k-1)}{6} + k^2 \\ &= \frac{(k-1)k(2k-1) + 6k^2}{6} \\ &= \frac{k((k-1)(2k-1) + 6k)}{6} \\ &= \frac{k(2k^2 + 3k + 1)}{6} = \frac{k(k+1)(2k+1)}{6}, \end{aligned}$$

so $P(k)$ is in fact true. This contradicts $k \in S$. Therefore $S = \emptyset$, and $P(n)$ holds for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$. ■

2.3 The Algebraic and Order Properties of $\mathbb{R}$

The real numbers $\mathbb{R}$ form a *complete ordered field*. We build up this description in three stages: the field (algebraic) axioms, the order axioms, and the completeness axiom.

Definition 2.3.1 (Field)

A **field** is a set F equipped with two binary operations

$$+ : F \times F \rightarrow F, \quad \cdot : F \times F \rightarrow F,$$

satisfying the following axioms for all $a, b, c \in F$.

F1. Associativity of addition.

$$a + (b + c) = (a + b) + c.$$

F2. Commutativity of addition.

$$a + b = b + a.$$

F3. Additive identity. There exists an element $0 \in F$ such that

$$a + 0 = a.$$

F4. Additive inverses. For every $a \in F$, there exists an element $-a \in F$ such that

$$a + (-a) = 0.$$

F5. Associativity of multiplication.

$$a \cdot (b \cdot c) = (a \cdot b) \cdot c.$$

F6. Commutativity of multiplication.

$$a \cdot b = b \cdot a.$$

F7. Multiplicative identity. There exists an element $1 \in F$, with $1 \neq 0$, such that

$$a \cdot 1 = a.$$

F8. Multiplicative inverses. For every $a \in F$ with $a \neq 0$, there exists an element $a^{-1} \in F$ such that

$$a \cdot a^{-1} = 1.$$

F9. Distributive law.

$$a \cdot (b + c) = a \cdot b + a \cdot c.$$

Remark

The rational numbers $\mathbb{Q}$ also form a field.

Theorem 2.3.2 a) If $z, a \in \mathbb{R}$ with $z + a = a$, then $z = 0$.

b) If $u \in \mathbb{R}$ and $b \neq 0$ with $u \cdot b = b$, then $u = 1$.

c) If $a \in \mathbb{R}$, then $a \cdot 0 = 0$.

Proof

a)

$$z = z + 0 = z + (a - a) = (z + a) + (-a) = a + (-a) = 0.$$

b) Multiplying $u \cdot b = b$ by b^{-1} ,

$$u = u \cdot 1 = u \cdot (b \cdot b^{-1}) = (u \cdot b) \cdot b^{-1} = b \cdot b^{-1} = 1.$$

c)

$$a \cdot 0 = a \cdot (0 + 0) = a \cdot 0 + a \cdot 0.$$

Adding $-(a \cdot 0)$ to both sides, and using associativity, gives $0 = a \cdot 0$.

■

Definition 2.3.3 (The Order Properties of $\mathbb{R}$)

There is a nonempty subset P of $\mathbb{R}$, called the set of **positive real numbers**, that satisfies the following properties.

O1. Trichotomy law. For every $a \in \mathbb{R}$, exactly one of the following holds:

$$a = 0, \quad a \in P, \quad -a \in P.$$

O2. Closure under addition. If $a, b \in P$, then $a + b \in P$.

O3. Closure under multiplication. If $a, b \in P$, then $a \cdot b \in P$.

Definition 2.3.4 (Order relation)

Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$.

(i) If $a - b \in P$, then we write $a > b$ or $b < a$.

(ii) If $a - b \in P \cup \{0\}$, then we write $a \geq b$ or $b \leq a$.

Remark

$\mathbb{Q}$ is also ordered, so we are still missing something: completeness.

Definition 2.3.5 (Completeness Axiom)

If $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is nonempty and bounded above, then A has a least upper bound in $\mathbb{R}$.

Example 2.3.6

Prove that if $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $a \neq 0$, then $a^2 > 0$.

Proof

Since $a \neq 0$, the trichotomy law gives two cases.

Case 1: $a \in P$. By closure under multiplication,

$$a^2 = a \cdot a \in P, \quad \text{so } a^2 > 0.$$

Case 2: $a \notin P$. Since $a \neq 0$, trichotomy gives $-a \in P$, so by closure under multiplication $(-a)(-a) \in P$. It remains to show that $a^2 = (-a)(-a)$:

$$\begin{aligned} a + (-a) = 0 &\implies (-a)(a + (-a)) = (-a) \cdot 0 = 0 \\ &\implies (-a)(a) + (-a)(-a) = 0 \\ &\implies (-a)(-a) = -((-a)a) = -(-a^2) = a^2. \end{aligned}$$

Hence $a^2 = (-a)(-a) \in P$, so $a^2 > 0$. In either case $a^2 > 0$. ■

2.3.1 The Absolute Value

Definition 2.3.7

Given $a \in \mathbb{R}$, we define the **absolute value** $|a|$ by

$$|a| = \begin{cases} a, & a \geq 0, \\ -a, & a < 0. \end{cases}$$

Theorem 2.3.8 (a) $|ab| = |a||b|$ for all $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$.

(b) $|a|^2 = a^2$ for all $a \in \mathbb{R}$.

(c) For $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $c > 0$,

$$|a| \leq c \iff -c \leq a \leq c.$$

(d) For every $a \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$-|a| \leq a \leq |a|.$$

Proof

The definition immediately gives $|-a| = |a|$: if $a \geq 0$, then $-a \leq 0$, and if $a < 0$, then $-a > 0$. It also gives

$$-|a| \leq a \leq |a|,$$

proving (d). In the two cases $a \geq 0$ and $a < 0$, respectively, $|a|^2 = a^2$ is immediate; this proves (b).

For (a), there are four sign combinations. If $a, b \geq 0$, then $ab \geq 0$, so $|ab| = ab = |a||b|$. If $a \geq 0 > b$, then $ab \leq 0$, so $|ab| = -ab = a(-b) = |a||b|$. The case $b \geq 0 > a$ is the same with the roles reversed. Finally, if $a, b < 0$, then $ab > 0$, and

$$|ab| = ab = (-a)(-b) = |a||b|.$$

Finally let $c > 0$. Suppose first that $|a| \leq c$. If $a \geq 0$, then $|a| = a$, so $a \leq c$; also $-c < 0 \leq a$.

If $a < 0$, then $|a| = -a$, so $-a \leq c$, equivalently $-c \leq a$; also $a < 0 < c$. Hence $-c \leq a \leq c$ in either case.

Conversely, suppose $-c \leq a \leq c$. If $a \geq 0$, then $|a| = a \leq c$. If $a < 0$, multiplying $-c \leq a$ by -1 reverses the inequality and gives $-a \leq c$, hence $|a| \leq c$. This proves (c). ■

Proposition 2.3.9 (Triangle Inequality)

If $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, then $|a + b| \leq |a| + |b|$.

Proof

Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$. We know that

$$\begin{aligned} -|a| &\leq a \leq |a| \\ -|b| &\leq b \leq |b| \end{aligned}$$

Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} -|a| - |b| &\leq a + b \leq |a| + |b| \\ \iff -(|a| + |b|) &\leq a + b \leq |a| + |b| \end{aligned}$$

If $|a| + |b| = 0$, then the displayed bounds give $a + b = 0$, so the claim is immediate. Otherwise, part (c) of the preceding theorem gives

$$|a + b| \leq |a| + |b|.$$

■

Corollary 2.3.10 (i) $||a| - |b|| \leq |a - b|$.

(ii) $|a - b| \leq |a| + |b|$

Proof of (1)

Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$. We know

$$\begin{aligned} a &= a - b + b \implies |a| = |(a - b) + b| \leq |a - b| + |b| \\ &\implies |a| - |b| \leq |a - b| \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} b &= b - a + a \implies |b| = |(b - a) + a| \leq |b - a| + |a| \\ &\implies |b| - |a| \leq |b - a| = |-(a - b)| = |a - b|. \\ &\implies |a| - |b| \geq -|a - b| \end{aligned}$$

Thus,

$$-|a - b| \leq |a| - |b| \leq |a - b|$$

Therefore,

$$||a| - |b|| \leq |a - b|$$

■

Proof of (2)

Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$. We know

$$|a - b| = |a + (-b)| \leq |a| + |-b| = |a| + |b|.$$

■

2.4 Bounds

Bounds make sense in any ordered set. The special feature of $\mathbb{R}$ is that every nonempty set bounded above has a supremum in $\mathbb{R}$; this need not hold in $\mathbb{Q}$.

Definition 2.4.1 (Bounded Sets)

Let S be a nonempty subset of $\mathbb{R}$. The set S is said to be

- (i) bounded above: there exists $u \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $x \leq u$ for all $x \in S$.
- (ii) bounded below: there exists $w \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $w \leq x$ for all $x \in S$.
- (iii) bounded: it is both bounded above and below.
- (iv) unbounded: not bounded.

If there exists an upper bound u_0 of S such that whenever u is an upper bound for S we have $u_0 \leq u$, then u_0 is called the least upper bound, or the supremum, of S .

$$u_0 := \sup S$$

If there exists a lower bound w_0 of S such that whenever w is a lower bound for S we have $w_0 \geq w$, then w_0 is called the greatest lower bound, or the infimum, of S .

$$w_0 := \inf S$$

Remark

There can be only one supremum/infimum of a given set S of $\mathbb{R}$.

Idea: Suppose u_1 and u_2 are both suprema of S .

Since u_1 is a supremum and u_2 is an upper bound, we get

$$u_1 \leq u_2.$$

Since u_2 is a supremum and u_1 is an upper bound, we get

$$u_2 \leq u_1.$$

Thus, $u_1 = u_2$.

Lemma 2.4.2

An upper bound u of a nonempty set S in $\mathbb{R}$ is the supremum of S if and only if

$$(\forall \epsilon > 0)(\exists x_\epsilon \in S)u - \epsilon < x_\epsilon.$$

Proof

First suppose $u = \sup S$. Let $\epsilon > 0$. Since

$$u - \epsilon < u,$$

the number $u - \epsilon$ cannot be an upper bound: otherwise it would be an upper bound smaller than u . By the definition of upper bound, there is therefore some $x_\epsilon \in S$ such that

$$u - \epsilon < x_\epsilon \leq u.$$

Conversely, suppose u is an upper bound and that for every $\epsilon > 0$ there exists $x_\epsilon \in S$ with $u - \epsilon < x_\epsilon$. If u were not the least upper bound, there would be another upper bound $w < u$. Choose

$$\epsilon = u - w > 0.$$

The assumed condition then yields

$$w = u - \epsilon < x_\epsilon,$$

contradicting that w is an upper bound. Hence $u = \sup S$. ■

Example 2.4.3

Consider the set $S = \{x \in \mathbb{R} : 0 \leq x \leq 1\}$.

– $\sup S = 1$.

Proof

Every $x \in S$ satisfies $x \leq 1$, so 1 is an upper bound. To see directly that no smaller number works, let $u < 1$. If $u < 0$, then $0 \in S$ lies above u . If $0 \leq u < 1$, set $x = (u + 1)/2$. Then

$$u < x = \frac{u + 1}{2} < 1,$$

so $x \in S$ lies above u . Thus every number below 1 fails to be an upper bound, and $\sup S = 1$. ■

– $\inf S = 0$.

Proof

Since $x \geq 0$ for all $x \in S$, 0 is a lower bound. If $w > 0$, then $0 \in S$ satisfies $0 < w$, so w is not a lower bound. Thus no number greater than 0 is a lower bound, and $\inf S = 0$. ■

2.5 The Completeness Property of $\mathbb{R}$

Axiom (Completeness Property)

Every nonempty set of real numbers that has an upper bound also has a supremum in $\mathbb{R}$.

Corollary 2.5.1

Every nonempty set of real numbers that has a lower bound also has an infimum in $\mathbb{R}$.

Proof

Let $S \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be nonempty with a lower bound w , that is, $w \leq s$ for all $s \in S$. As a consequence, $-w \geq -s$ for all $s \in S$.

Define $S' = \{-s : s \in S\}$. Then S' is nonempty, and

$$-w \geq -s, \forall s \in S \implies -w \text{ is an upper bound for } S'.$$

By the Completeness Axiom, S' has a supremum. Say

$$u := \sup S' \in \mathbb{R}.$$

We claim that $-u = \inf S$.

- **Lower bound:** Since $u = \sup S' \geq -s$ for all $s \in S$, we get $-u \leq s$ for all $s \in S$. So $-u$ is a lower bound for S .
- **Greatest lower bound:** Let w be any lower bound for S . As shown above, $-w$ is then an upper bound for S' , so $u = \sup S' \leq -w$, which gives $w \leq -u$.

Thus $-u$ is a lower bound for S that is at least as large as every other lower bound, so $-u = \inf S$. ■

Example 2.5.2

$$S = \left\{ \left(1 + \frac{1}{n}\right)^n : n \in \mathbb{N} \right\}$$

For every $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the binomial theorem gives

$$\left(1 + \frac{1}{n}\right)^n = 1 + \binom{n}{1} \frac{1}{n} + \sum_{k=2}^n \binom{n}{k} \frac{1}{n^k} > 1.$$

Indeed, for $0 \leq k \leq n$,

$$\binom{n}{k} = \frac{n(n-1) \cdots (n-k+1)}{k!} \leq \frac{n^k}{k!}.$$

For $k \geq 2$, we have $k! \geq 2^{k-1}$, because each factor from 2 through k is at least 2. Therefore

$$\left(1 + \frac{1}{n}\right)^n \leq \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{1}{k!} < 1 + 1 + \sum_{k=2}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2^{k-1}} = 3.$$

| Thus $1 < (1 + 1/n)^n < 3$ for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$.

2.6 The Archimedean Property

We now prove that $\mathbb{N}$ is not bounded above in $\mathbb{R}$. The proof combines two ingredients:

- Completeness of $\mathbb{R}$.
- The inductive property of $\mathbb{N}$ (that $\mathbb{N}$ is closed under $+1$).

Definition 2.6.1 (Archimedean Property)

If $x \in \mathbb{R}$, then there exists $n_x \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $x \leq n_x$.

Proof

Suppose, for contradiction, that $\exists x \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $x > n$ for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$.

Then x is an upper bound for $\mathbb{N}$. Since $1 \in \mathbb{N}$, $\mathbb{N} \neq \emptyset$, so by the Completeness Axiom, $\mathbb{N}$ has a supremum in $\mathbb{R}$.

Say $u = \sup \mathbb{N}$. Since

$$u - 1 < u,$$

$u - 1$ is not an upper bound for $\mathbb{N}$. Hence

$$\exists m \in \mathbb{N} \text{ such that } u - 1 < m,$$

which gives

$$u < m + 1.$$

But $m + 1 \in \mathbb{N}$ (since $\mathbb{N}$ is closed under $+1$), so $m + 1 \leq u$, contradicting $u < m + 1$.

Therefore no such x exists; that is, for every $x \in \mathbb{R}$ there exists $n_x \in \mathbb{N}$ with $x \leq n_x$. ■

Proposition 2.6.2

There exists a real number x such that $x^2 = 2$.

Proof

Define

$$S = \{t \in \mathbb{R} : t \geq 0, t^2 < 2\}.$$

We have $1 \in S$, so $S \neq \emptyset$, and 2 is an upper bound for S : if $t \in S$ and $t > 2$, then $t^2 > 4 > 2$, a contradiction. By the Completeness Axiom, S has a supremum in $\mathbb{R}$.

Let $x = \sup S$. Note $x \geq 1 > 0$. We show $x^2 = 2$ by ruling out $x^2 < 2$ and $x^2 > 2$.

Case 1: $x^2 < 2$. We find $n \in \mathbb{N}$ large enough that $x + \frac{1}{n} \in S$, contradicting that x is an upper bound for S . Since $x \geq 1$ and $n \geq 1$,

$$\left(x + \frac{1}{n}\right)^2 = x^2 + \frac{2x}{n} + \frac{1}{n^2} \leq x^2 + \frac{2x}{n} + \frac{1}{n} = x^2 + \frac{2x+1}{n}.$$

Since $x^2 < 2$, the Archimedean Property lets us choose $n \in \mathbb{N}$ large enough that

$$\frac{2x+1}{n} < 2 - x^2.$$

Then

$$\left(x + \frac{1}{n}\right)^2 < x^2 + (2 - x^2) = 2,$$

so $x + \frac{1}{n} \in S$. But $x + \frac{1}{n} > x = \sup S$, a contradiction. Hence $x^2 \geq 2$.

Case 2: $x^2 > 2$. We find $n \in \mathbb{N}$ large enough that $x - \frac{1}{n}$ is an upper bound for S smaller than x , contradicting that $x = \sup S$. Since

$$\left(x - \frac{1}{n}\right)^2 = x^2 - \frac{2x}{n} + \frac{1}{n^2} > x^2 - \frac{2x}{n},$$

the Archimedean Property lets us choose $n \in \mathbb{N}$ large enough that

$$\frac{2x}{n} < x^2 - 2.$$

Then

$$\left(x - \frac{1}{n}\right)^2 > x^2 - (x^2 - 2) = 2.$$

So for any $t \in S$, we have $t^2 < 2 < \left(x - \frac{1}{n}\right)^2$. Also $x - 1/n \geq 0$ because $x \geq 1$ and $n \geq 1$. Since $u \mapsto u^2$ is strictly increasing on $[0, \infty)$, this implies $t < x - \frac{1}{n}$. Thus $x - \frac{1}{n}$ is an upper bound for S smaller than $x = \sup S$, a contradiction. Hence $x^2 \leq 2$.

Combining both cases, $x^2 = 2$. ■